

Greatest Happiness Principle

Jonathan Riley

The greatest happiness principle is the ultimate standard of morality set up by classical utilitarianism (*see* UTILITARIANISM). That classical creed conceives of good as happiness (*see* HAPPINESS) and holds that right actions are those which maximize the total happiness of the members of the community. As John Stuart Mill (*see* MILL, JOHN STUART) explains in *Utilitarianism* (1861), “The creed which accepts as the foundation of morals, Utility, or the Greatest Happiness Principle, holds that actions are right in proportion as they tend to promote happiness, wrong as they tend to produce the reverse of happiness” (1969: 210). Moreover, happiness is understood in hedonistic terms, “By happiness is intended pleasure, and the absence of pain; by unhappiness, pain, and the privation of pleasure” (*see* HEDONISM; PLEASURE).

According to a received view, the classical utilitarian creed originated in the late eighteenth century and gained prominence during the Victorian age, only to come under sustained attack thereafter, so that it was barely alive by 1950, generally abandoned even by modern utilitarians who rejected the hedonistic interpretation of utility. Prominent classical utilitarians include Bentham (*see* BENTHAM, JEREMY), Paley, Godwin, the two Mills (father and son), George Grote, Austin (*see* AUSTIN, JOHN), Bain, and Sidgwick (*see* SIDGWICK, HENRY), as well as early neoclassical economists such as Jevons, Edgeworth, Marshall, and Pigou. By 1950, leading utilitarians and economists rarely conceived of utility in terms of happiness or pleasure, opting instead to conceive of it in other terms such as desire-fulfillment, a disposition to make consistent choices, or an index of some objective list of valuable things. Nevertheless, a revival of interest in classical hedonistic utilitarianism has occurred recently within economics and psychology (Kahneman 1999; Kahneman et al. 1997).

It should not be assumed that the greatest happiness principle was unknown prior to Paley’s *Principles of Moral and Political Philosophy* (1785) and Bentham’s *Introduction to the Principles of Morals and Legislation* (1789). As Sidgwick points out, for instance, Bentham mentions that he took it from Helvetius and Priestley (1981: 88), whereas Paley gives credit to Tucker without recognizing that Gay had already, in 1731, given an outline of Paley’s theological doctrine (1988: 236–8). Unlike Bentham’s secular version, the theological doctrine sees the greatest happiness principle as the divine will from which rational self-interested individuals have no incentive to deviate because it is enforced by the reward of heaven and the punishment of hell. Sidgwick regards Cumberland as “the founder of English utilitarianism,” even though “Cumberland does not adopt a hedonistic interpretation of good” – the hedonistic interpretation is implicit in Shaftesbury’s system,

Sidgwick claims, and explicit in Hume's (1981: 423 n.1; see HUME, DAVID). Mill implies that the greatest happiness principle has a long history, and suggests that it was endorsed by some of the leading ancient Greeks, including Epicurus, Socrates as depicted by Plato (see PLATO; SOCRATES) in dialogues such as *Protagoras*, and Aristotle (see ARISTOTLE). Mill is well aware that the ancient Greeks focused attention on the individual's happiness rather than on an aggregate quantity which is not experienced by any individual. Moreover, he is correct that Aristotle and some of the British sentimentalists (see SENTIMENTALISM) who were strongly influenced by him, including Hutcheson (see HUTCHESON, FRANCIS) and Smith (see SMITH, ADAM), although they do not regard pleasure *per se* as intrinsically valuable, do conceive of happiness or *eudaimonia* (see EUDAIMONISM) in terms of superior kinds or qualities of pleasant feelings which accompany and complete (like icing on the cake) intellectual and virtuous activities that are judged as worthy according to some independent standard of human excellence. By implication, these thinkers might be interpreted as accepting a greatest happiness principle, with the important caveat that their ideas of happiness are not purely hedonistic but instead incorporate perfectionist ideals that allow worthy pleasures (emanating from worthy sources) to be distinguished from less worthy or worthless ones (Riley 2008: 172–8; see PERFECTIONISM).

Any suggestion that ancient Greeks and seventeenth-century British moralists might be regarded as proponents of the greatest happiness principle can only appear puzzling or worse to those who accept the received view of classical utilitarianism. The received view insists that the greatest happiness principle depends on three crucial assumptions, to wit, (1) utility as happiness or pleasure including relief from pain is a homogenous feeling, whatever its sources; (2) rich utility information is possible so that one individual's happiness can be added to another's to form a meaningful total for the whole community, i.e., units of pleasure must be cardinally measurable and interpersonally comparable; and (3) morality demands a complete sacrifice of the individual's happiness or self-interest if such sacrifice is necessary to maximize the community's total happiness. Indeed, this received view is now commonly accepted as definitive of pure maximizing utilitarianism as such, however utility is conceived: utility must be homogenous so that one unit of it is always of the same value; rich utility information must be feasible in principle; and the individual has a moral obligation to choose actions or policies that maximize total utility even at the expense of his or her own utility.

As is well known, the greatest happiness principle under the received interpretation is vulnerable to powerful objections, including the violation of moral rights (see RIGHTS), failure to respect independent principles of distributive or retributive justice (see JUSTICE), inability to accommodate the value of personal integrity (see INTEGRITY), and so forth. The principle thus understood lacks appeal, for example, because it is indifferent as to whether the community's greatest total happiness is concentrated in the elite, leaving the masses in misery, or spread equally among the members of the community. This insensitivity to considerations of distributive justice has led many consequentialists (see CONSEQUENTIALISM) to reject the

utilitarian sum-total criterion, which gives equal weight to equal amounts of utility no matter who experiences it, in favor of aggregation procedures that give increased weight or even absolute priority to the utilities of relatively worse-off individuals (Sen 1977; Skorupski 2006: 24). These other procedures implicitly rely on nonutility values, however, to justify the unequal weighting of individual utilities. Thus, such procedures do not aim to promote the community's greatest total utility or happiness but instead seek to constrain it to the extent required to redistribute happiness to the relatively worse-off (Riley 2010c: 68, 74–8).

However, the received view of utilitarianism is largely the creation of Sidgwick and the early neoclassical economists, who revised and gave fake mathematical precision to the doctrine they took from Bentham, although Bentham's own contribution is far from insignificant because he suggests that pleasure is a homogeneous feeling and also makes the implausible claim that any prudent egoist's own happiness is invariably in harmony with the total happiness of the community (see EGOISM; PRUDENCE). In any case, proponents of the greatest happiness principle are not necessarily committed to the three crucial assumptions upon which the received view rests. Mill, for instance, rejects all three assumptions. Even Bentham rejects the assumption of cardinal and interpersonally comparable utility information. As Mitchell (1918) has shown, Bentham admits that such rich information about different persons' feelings of pleasure is not really available despite the advice he provides for estimating the amounts of pleasure to be expected from some feasible set of sources such as alternative laws. Instead, he in effect relies on quite poor, purely ordinal utility information, that is, diverse individual preference orderings defined over the sources of pleasure, where a prudent yet fallible person's ordering directly reflects her estimates of expected pleasure based on his advice to take account of intensity, duration, fecundity, and so forth. The upshot is that, instead of a familiar utilitarian procedure that mechanically calculates the greatest total amount of happiness with precision, he has in mind some form of purely ordinalist utilitarian procedure such as a democratic political process that yields laws and policies which popular majorities or their elected representatives agree are likely to bring the most total happiness (Riley 1990; see DEMOCRACY). Thus, when he defends the standard of "the greatest happiness of the greatest number," Bentham seems to mean that the laws and policies which ought to be chosen are those most strongly preferred by the largest possible majorities, taking for granted that individuals are rational egoists who prudently seek to promote their own happiness.

Sidgwick himself calls attention to Bentham's remarkable supposition that a prudent individual's own greatest happiness is always in harmony with the greatest total happiness of the community: "in the *Deontology* ... it is distinctly assumed that, in actual human life as empirically known, the conduct most conducive to general happiness *always* coincides with that which conduces most to the happiness of the agent; and that 'vice may be defined as a miscalculation of chances' from a purely mundane point of view" (1988: 244, emphasis original). In contrast, Sidgwick emphasizes that the rational individual's happiness can conflict with the community's,

even if they often do not conflict, and he chooses to associate utilitarianism with maximization of the community's total happiness ("universalistic hedonism") instead of maximization of the individual's own happiness ("egoistic hedonism"). Utilitarianism may call for "disinterested" self-sacrifice on behalf of others but such altruism clashes with prudent self-interest, even supposing that prudence embraces rational cooperation with others.

For Sidgwick, there are really two greatest happiness principles which can contradict one another, and utilitarians opt for one of these principles whereas ethical egoists opt for the other in cases of conflict. In his view, both happiness principles are grounded on self-evident principles of rational intuition, namely, intuitive principles of rational benevolence and impartiality ("justice") in the case of utilitarianism, and an intuitive principle of prudence in the case of ethical egoism. He argues that human reason is unable without divine help to resolve conflicts between utilitarianism and ethical egoism, and he cannot find any rational intuition to assure him that there really is a divine being to resolve the conflicts in favor of utilitarianism as theologians such as Paley assert. Thus, he concludes that the idea of rationalizing morality completely must be abandoned – this is the bite of his "dualism of practical reason" (1981: 404 n.1). Instead, humans must accept that morality is rationally incomplete: "in the rarer cases of a recognized conflict between [prudent] self-interest and duties [to promote general happiness], practical reason, being divided against itself, would cease to be a motive on either side; the conflict would have to be decided by the comparative preponderance of one or other of two groups of non-rational impulses" (508). In short, Sidgwick is properly read not as a classical utilitarian but rather as a rational intuitionist with a tragic pluralistic view of ethics. He only ever gives qualified support to a utilitarian moral code, as when he says that "it may be offered as a code to be obeyed not absolutely, but only so far as the coincidence of private and general interest may in any case be judged to extend" (1988: 248).

Evidently, Sidgwick rejects Bentham's empirical claim that a prudent individual's own greatest happiness is always in harmony with the greatest general happiness, and he dismisses Paley's theological claim that a divine system of rewards and punishments exists to resolve any conflicts between them. He also rejects what he sees as Mill's utilitarian prescription of "an unqualified subordination of private to general happiness" (1988: 245). In his opinion, the arguments offered by Mill in *Utilitarianism* do not show why a prudent agent would take the community's total happiness as his ultimate end. In particular, Sidgwick insists that Mill's "recognition of differences of quality in pleasures distinct from and overriding differences of quantity" is inconsistent with utilitarianism "since it is hard to see in what sense a man who of two alternative pleasures chooses the less pleasant on the ground of its superiority in quality can be affirmed to take 'greatest' happiness or pleasure as his standard of preference" (1988: 247, emphasis original). While it might be true that a harmony between individual and general happiness can be effected by assigning a superiority of quality to a moral kind of pleasant feelings, he implies, the resulting doctrine is not genuine maximizing utilitarianism but instead a complicated and perplexing doctrine that imports foreign values (e.g., perfectionist ideals) to

constrain and subvert the greatest happiness principle. Moreover, “even after the introduction of this alien element, it cannot be said that Mill’s utilitarianism includes an adequate proof that persons of all natures and temperaments will obtain even the best chance of private happiness in this life by determining always to aim at general happiness; indeed, he hardly attempts or professes to furnish such a proof” (1988: 247). Thus, despite his expressed admiration for Mill, Sidgwick treats him as a deeply confused thinker. Such treatment was taken up with great enthusiasm by Sidgwick’s student Moore (1903; *see* MOORE, G. E.), and thus began an enduring academic tradition of dismissing Mill’s work as so muddled as to be of little interest except perhaps as a warning to the naive.

Sidgwick and those in his train have arguably never appreciated the structure of Mill’s extraordinary utilitarianism or the ingenious way in which it removes the possibility of conflict between a highly developed and experienced rational individual’s own greatest happiness and the community’s greatest total happiness. Mill’s doctrine of higher kinds of pleasures can be seen to be compatible with the greatest happiness principle once the blinders of the received view are removed. As he explains, one pleasant feeling is superior in quality to another if the one is felt by those who are competently acquainted with both to be intrinsically more valuable than the other, irrespective of quantity. In other words, those who have developed the intellectual, imaginative, and sympathetic capacities required to competently experience the different kinds of pleasures must agree – or, if there is disagreement, a majority of them must agree – that even a bit of the one pleasant feeling is more valuable as pleasure, and thus a greater happiness, than any finite amount of the other, no matter how large. In effect, the qualitatively superior pleasure is an infinitely greater pleasure than the inferior one insofar as no finite quantity of the inferior feeling, however large, can equal in value even a small quantity of the superior one. There is no problem of consistency in calling for the maximization of pleasure in point of quality as well as quantity when choosing among actions or policies: the greatest quantity of the qualitatively supreme kind of pleasure should be the first consideration, then the greatest quantity of the next quality of pleasure should be sought insofar as that kind of pleasure can be experienced without impinging on the supreme kind, and so forth, down to the least intrinsically valuable kind of pleasure.

However, what are the different kinds of pleasant feelings, and how are they ranked in terms of quality? Briefly, physical sensations of pleasure are the lowest kind of pleasure since these simple tingles and surges can be experienced by any animal whose body is susceptible to them, even if the body is “disjoined from the higher faculties” of a human being. In contrast, higher kinds of pleasures are more complex feelings in which these simple physical sensations, or their traces in memory or imagination, have become inseparably associated with ideas formed by the active intellect: any higher pleasure is a quasi-chemical compound of multiple ingredients which are blended together to generate a whole new pleasant feeling with its own distinctive emergent properties, including superiority in quality over any lower pleasures among its ingredients. Mill labels all higher pleasures as “mental” pleasures whereas the simple sensations are “bodily” pleasures. But even within the

class of mental pleasures, some pleasures are superior in quality to others. For present purposes, it suffices to say that, for him, the complex moral sentiment (*see* SENTIMENTS, MORAL) which grows up around the idea of justice understood as a social code of equal rights and correlative duties is a higher pleasure that is superior in quality to any conflicting pleasures, although aesthetic and spiritual pleasures which are not in conflict with those of morality may be supreme in quality (Riley 2010a, 2010b, 2012b).

The higher pleasure of justice, which Mill refers to as a feeling of security, is a complex moral emotion which has among its ingredients the idea of equal rights, and the related idea of punishment for wrong-doers who violate others' rights, along with certain lower pleasures including relief from suffering, all melted together into a compound that may feel simple insofar as the ingredients disappear from consciousness unless deliberately recalled through analysis. This higher pleasure can only be competently experienced by an individual who has developed her higher faculties as a member of a group of peers living under a shared code that distributes and sanctions reciprocal rights for that group, a code which is typically incomplete and in the continuing process of construction of which she has an equal voice. In light of the qualitative superiority of this moral kind of pleasure, no competing considerations are more important for promoting the community's greatest total happiness than establishing an optimal social code of justice that maximizes total security. Security is a variable, however, and can only be maximized if equal rights of a particular content are extended not merely to some but to all members of society, with all having an equal voice in a democratic political process that identifies which particular rights must be recognized to protect the vital personal interests shared by all.

Indeed, the moral ideas and principles built into this higher pleasure of justice include the principle of equal concern and respect that animates the utilitarian aggregation procedure itself, which is employed solely to aggregate over individual judgments about which particular rules and rights should be recognized by society to promote the most security for vital personal interests shared by all. Sidgwick and the academic economists ignored not only Mill's explicit warnings against fake precision but also his confinement of the utilitarian aggregation procedure to the construction of an authoritative social code of justice. Like Bentham, Mill is a proponent of representative democracy, although the strongly majoritarian institutions proposed by Bentham in *Constitutional Code* (1830) differ in important respects from the liberal institutions proposed by Mill in *Considerations on Representative Government* (1861) (Riley 2007). Moreover, given that social codes which distribute and sanction equal rights and duties are the only source of the higher pleasure of justice, Mill makes clear that the democratic political process should only consider individual preferences defined over feasible sets of alternative social rules of this sort, with the ultimate aim of choosing an optimal code that maximizes security for the personal interests which competent representatives think are so important as to deserve protection by right. However, Bentham apparently agrees, despite not making use of the higher pleasures doctrine.

The democratic aggregation procedure is properly viewed as being *internal* to any individual's moral sentiment of justice because the procedure must do its work before any highly developed rational agent can complete the formation of her moral sentiment, that is, her desire to interact on fair terms with others in her society by respecting their constituted rights. It is important to see that every person's completed moral sentiment relates to the same social code of justice, namely, the code which competent lawmakers currently believe is likely to bring the most security to everyone's shared vital personal concerns. Since everyone has the same rights and duties, however, the conduct – that is, obey the social rules – that maximizes the community's total pleasure of security coincides with the conduct that maximizes any individual's pleasure of security: the total is nothing but the collection of individual feelings, which are not assumed to be cardinal or interpersonally comparable and so cannot (and need not) be precisely summed in any meaningful fashion.

True, the individual's moral sentiment of justice must be distinguished from her preference ordering over the possible alternative codes of justice: the preference is an input into the aggregation procedure, whereas the sentiment can only be formed fully after the procedure yields an authoritative social code. However, there is no presumption that any individual should be permitted to impose a code which she most prefers over the objections of her peers. Instead, justice requires that everyone must cooperate to impartially choose a code which most if not all of those competently acquainted with the higher pleasure of security agree is likely to maximize that crucial component of happiness for all. Also, given the poverty of the utility information, there is no suggestion that every individual must experience an equal amount of the pleasure of security from her equal rights: nothing meaningful can be said about the relative intensities of different person's moral sentiments, even though people all have the same constituted rights and duties.

There is no call for the democratic aggregation procedure to do anything besides generate an optimal social code of justice. Rather, rational individuals are permitted to act as they wish in accord with their constituted rights and duties under the authoritative code. As long as she fulfills her duties to others, the individual is left free to create her plan of life in her own way: others have duties not to obstruct her pursuit of other kinds of pleasures besides that of security as she sees fit (Riley 2012a).

Mill's unusual and intriguing utilitarianism has the appearance of rule utilitarianism, although the higher pleasures doctrine consistently accounts for the priority of the rules of justice in a way that is not available to standard rule utilitarianism with its insistence on homogenous utility. For Mill, acts of injustice may produce more pleasure of a lower kind than compliance with the rules does, but the greater amount of lower pleasure, no matter how many people feel it, can never equal in value even a bit of the higher pleasure of security. Thus, violating the equal rights of others can never promote happiness in Mill's sense, although there is no doubt a need to carefully construct the rules of justice, making justified exceptions to ordinary rules by employing suitable special rules, so that which of any two conflicting rights is the more important one for promoting security is made clear in situations where different rights come into conflict.

A final point relates to the extension of the greatest happiness principle to the whole of sentient creation. Such an extension adds further objections to the received view of classical utilitarianism. After all, if pleasure is a homogenous feeling that vast numbers of nonhuman animals can also experience, then the extended principle may call for deep sacrifices of human happiness and human rights if necessary to maximize the total happiness of all sentient creatures. Singer attempts to avoid this objection by arguing that it is reasonable for utilitarians to treat humans and nonhuman animals unequally because humans have important interests which the other animals are incapable of having. Equal treatment is required only if the interests being compared are similar ones shared by humans and nonhuman sentient creatures alike: "It is only when we are comparing similar interests – of which the interest in avoiding pain is the most important example – that the principle of equal consideration of interests demands that we give equal weight to the interests of the human and the mouse" (1981: 121). But what justifies the assumption that distinctive human interests have total utility value so great as to invariably outweigh the total misery, however large, which is felt by any number of nonhuman animals if human happiness and human rights are protected instead of being sacrificed when required to promote the shared sentient interest in avoiding pain? Certainly, there is no utilitarian justification if utility is pleasure and pleasure including relief from pain is a homogenous feeling. Singer, much influenced by Sidgwick and Kant, implies that human reason provides the needed justification independently of feelings of pleasure. But that appears to be rational intuitionism rather than classical utilitarianism. In effect, he proposes to supplement Sidgwick's rational intuitions without necessarily endorsing the dualism of practical reason, so that a utilitarian doctrine grounded on the intuitions involves unequal treatment of humans and nonhuman animals to the extent that such treatment is needed to protect distinctive human interests "in ideas, in education, [and] in their future plans" while taking seriously the need to reduce the misery of nonhuman animals (1981: 120).

Remarkably, Mill's extraordinary form of the greatest happiness principle consistently accommodates the whole of sentient creation in a way that might prove congenial to Singer's purposes. Given that nonhuman animals are only capable of feeling physical sensations of pleasure whereas humans can experience the higher kinds of pleasant feelings, there is no danger of human happiness and moral rights being sacrificed to promote the total happiness of all sentient creatures. Nevertheless, despite their qualitative inferiority, the physical sensations still have positive value, with the implication that needless infliction of suffering on nonhuman animals is condemned as immoral. Thus, reasonable humans ought to include animal rights against wanton human cruelty in any social code of justice (*see* ANIMAL RIGHTS). No doubt, the concrete specification of the rights must be left to competent majorities, and the rights must be enforced by concerned human trustees. But such rights do extend the benefits of security to nonhuman animals to a limited degree. More specifically, even though they are incapable of experiencing the higher pleasure of security itself, the animals are at least protected from experiencing the physical sensations of pain associated with wanton human cruelty.

Even though happiness of human and animal is not in the same level, human's recognition toward happiness can influence animals"

See also: ANIMAL RIGHTS; ARISTOTLE; AUSTIN, JOHN; BENTHAM, JEREMY; CONSEQUENTIALISM; DEMOCRACY; EGOISM; EUDAIMONISM; HAPPINESS; HEDONISM; HUME, DAVID; HUTCHESON, FRANCIS; INTEGRITY; JUSTICE; MILL, JOHN STUART; MOORE, G. E.; PERFECTIONISM; PLATO; PLEASURE; PRUDENCE; RIGHTS; SENTIMENTALISM; SENTIMENTS, MORAL; SIDGWICK, HENRY; SMITH, ADAM; SOCRATES; UTILITARIANISM

REFERENCES

- Kahneman, Daniel 1999. "Objective Happiness," in Daniel Kahneman, Ed Diener, and Norbert Schwarz (eds.), *Well-Being: The Foundations of Hedonic Psychology*. New York: Russell Sage Foundation, pp. 3–25.
- Kahneman, Daniel, P. P. Wakker, and R. Sarin 1997. "Back to Bentham? Explorations of Experienced Utility," *Quarterly Journal of Economics*, vol. 112, pp. 375–405.
- Mill, John Stuart 1969 [1861]. *Utilitarianism*, in John M. Robson (ed.), *Collected Works of John Stuart Mill*, vol. 10. Toronto: University of Toronto Press/London: Routledge & Kegan Paul, pp. 203–59.
- Mitchell, Wesley C. 1918. "Bentham's Felicific Calculus," *Political Science Quarterly*, vol. 33, pp. 161–83.
- Moore, G. E. 1903. *Principia Ethica*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Riley, Jonathan 1990. "Utilitarian Ethics and Democratic Government," *Ethics*, vol. 100, pp. 335–48.
- Riley, Jonathan 2007. "Mill's Neo-Athenian Model of Liberal Democracy," in Nadia Urbinati and Alex Zakaras (eds.), *J. S. Mill's Political Thought: A Bicentennial Reassessment*. Cambridge and New York: Cambridge University Press, pp. 221–49.
- Riley, Jonathan 2008. "Millian Qualitative Superiorities and Utilitarianism, Part 1," *Utilitas*, vol. 20, pp. 257–78.
- Riley, Jonathan 2010a. "Justice as Higher Pleasure," in Paul J. Kelly and Georgios Varouxakis (eds.), *J. S. Mill: Thought and Influence: The Saint of Rationalism*. London: Routledge, pp. 99–129.
- Riley, Jonathan 2010b. "Optimal Moral Rules and Supererogatory Acts," in Ben Eggleston, Dale Miller, and David Weinstein (eds.), *John Stuart Mill and the Art of Life: A Critical Reader*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, pp. 185–229.
- Riley, Jonathan 2010c. "Mill's Extraordinary Utilitarian Moral Theory," *Politics, Philosophy and Economics*, vol. 9, pp. 67–116.
- Riley, Jonathan 2012a. *Mill on Liberty*, 2nd ed. London: Routledge.
- Riley, Jonathan 2012b. "Happiness and the Moral Sentiment of Justice," in Leonard Kahn (ed.), *Mill on Justice*. London: Palgrave Macmillan, pp. 158–83.
- Sen, Amartya 1977. "On Weights and Measures: Informational Constraints in Social Welfare Analysis," *Econometrica*, vol. 45, pp. 1539–72.
- Sidgwick, Henry 1981 [1907]. *The Methods of Ethics*, 7th ed. Indianapolis: Hackett.
- Sidgwick, Henry 1988 [1902]. *Outlines of the History of Ethics*, 5th ed. Indianapolis: Hackett.
- Singer, Peter 1981. *The Expanding Circle: Ethics and Sociobiology*. New York: Farrar, Straus & Giroux.
- Skorupski, John 2006. *Why Read Mill Today?* London: Routledge.

FURTHER READINGS

- Hare, R. M. 1981. *Moral Thinking: Its Levels, Method and Point*. Oxford: Clarendon Press.
- Hart, H. L. A. 1982. *Essays on Bentham*. Oxford: Clarendon Press.
- Kelly, Paul J. 1990. *Utilitarianism and Distributive Justice: Jeremy Bentham and the Civil Law*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Mill, John Stuart 1974 [1843]. *A System of Logic Ratiocinative and Inductive*, in John M. Robson (ed.), *Collected Works of John Stuart Mill*, vols. 7–8. Toronto: University of Toronto Press/London: Routledge & Kegan Paul.
- Rawls, John 2007. *Lectures on the History of Political Philosophy*, ed. Samuel Freeman. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press, pp. 249–316, 375–415.
- Riley, Jonathan 2009. “The Interpretation of Maximizing Utilitarianism,” *Social Philosophy and Policy*, vol. 26, pp. 286–325.
- Riley, Jonathan 2012a. *Mill’s Radical Liberalism*. London: Routledge.
- Riley, Jonathan 2012b. “Rawls, Mill and Utilitarianism,” in Jon Mandle and David Reidy (eds.), *A Companion to Rawls*. New York: Wiley-Blackwell, to be published.
- Rosen, Fred 1983. *Jeremy Bentham and Representative Democracy: A Study of the Constitutional Code*. Oxford: Clarendon Press.
- Scheffler, Samuel 1993. *The Rejection of Consequentialism*, rev. ed. Oxford: Clarendon Press.
- Schneewind, J. B. 1977. *Sidgwick’s Ethics and Victorian Moral Philosophy*. Oxford: Clarendon Press.
- Sen, Amartya 1979. “Utilitarianism and Welfarism,” *Journal of Philosophy*, vol. 76, pp. 463–89.
- Sen, Amartya 2009. *The Idea of Justice*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press, pp. 269–90.
- Singer, Peter 2009 [1975]. *Animal Liberation*. New York: HarperCollins.
- Williams, Bernard 1985. *Ethics and the Limits of Philosophy*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.